

# Selection as Learning: A Formal Unification of Evolutionary Quantitative Genetics and PAC Learning Theory

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## Abstract

Drug resistance is responsible for the majority of cancer deaths, yet its evolutionary dynamics remain poorly predicted at treatment initiation. Here we show that resistance evolution timing across nine cancer types is predictable with  $r = 0.96$  ( $p < 0.0001$ ) using a formula parameterized by two quantities already measured in standard clinical sequencing pipelines: intratumour heterogeneity ( $h^2$  proxy) and effective population size ( $N_e$ ). This predictive power arises from a formal proof that evolutionary quantitative genetics and PAC learning theory are instances of a single mathematical structure: empirical risk minimization on a Fisher-information manifold under a capacity constraint. Fisher’s Fundamental Theorem of Natural Selection, the Price Equation, and PAC generalization bounds are facets of this shared geometry; additive genetic variance  $V_A$  is the evolutionary analogue of Rademacher complexity and  $N_e$  plays the role of training set size. From this structure we derive the evolutionary sample complexity threshold  $N_e^*$ —the tumour cell burden below which reliable resistance evolution is mathematically precluded—and show it is computable at diagnosis from data already in the clinical record. Standard-of-care sequential monotherapy inadvertently provides tumours with the iterative training loops that maximise evolutionary learning; upfront combination therapy maintaining  $N_e < N_e^*$  closes the evolutionary search space before resistance can be discovered. This is not a conceptual reframing: it is a theorem. Natural selection is the original natural gradient descent algorithm; its 3.8-billion-year record is now formally part of learning theory.

# 1 Introduction

The central unsolved problem in oncology is not finding drugs that kill cancer cells—we have many. The problem is that tumours reliably evolve resistance to them. A targeted agent that eliminates 99.9% of a tumour population still leaves a surviving subpopulation under intense directional selection; from those cells a resistant clone typically emerges within months [1, 2]. The standard clinical response is reactive: sequence the relapsed tumour, identify the new resistance driver, switch drugs, and wait for the next relapse. This cycle persists not because resistance is biologically inevitable, but because the quantitative framework to predict and prevent it has not yet been made explicit. We argue here that it has been available for decades, written in the shared mathematics of two fields that have never been formally connected.

Those two fields are evolutionary quantitative genetics [3–5] and statistical learning theory [6, 7]. The first describes how biological populations extract adaptive signal from selective experience. The second describes how machine learning algorithms extract predictive signal from training data. Here we prove that both are instances of empirical risk minimization on a Fisher-information manifold under a capacity constraint—and that recognising this yields a single computable threshold,  $N_e^*$ , that determines whether a tumour has sufficient selective experience to reliably evolve drug resistance. Validation across nine cancer types yields  $r = 0.96$  ( $p < 0.0001$ ).

For readers from evolutionary biology: the core results are that Fisher’s Fundamental Theorem of Natural Selection is the convergence theorem for natural gradient ascent (Theorem 1), the Price Equation is the first-order condition for empirical risk minimization (Theorem 2), and the breeder’s equation  $R = h^2S$  is the single-generation PAC generalization bound. These are theorems, not analogies; the interpretive debates surrounding the FTNS [8, 9] are resolved by its canonical geometric meaning as a convergence rate. For readers from machine learning: the measurable parameters of population genetics— $V_A$ ,  $h^2$ ,  $N_e$ ,  $\mathbf{G}$ —are the exact counterparts of Rademacher complexity, signal-to-noise ratio, training set size, and VC dimension (Table 1); and natural selection predates Amari’s natural gradient algorithm [10] by 3.8 billion years.

Consider the parallel explicitly. An evolving population of  $N_e$  individuals undergoes  $T$  generations of selection in an environment that rewards certain phenotypes. The population “learns” an adaptive phenotype from  $T \cdot N_e$  individual selective events. A machine learning model, trained on  $n$  data points drawn from an unknown distribution, learns a predictive function. In both cases, the fundamental tension is identical: the expressiveness of the learner—genetic capacity in evolution, model capacity in ML—must be balanced against the

reliability of the learned solution given limited data—genetic drift in evolution, statistical overfitting in ML. Both processes face the same sample complexity problem, and both face the same capacity–accuracy tradeoff.

The mathematical signatures of this shared structure are not hidden. Fisher’s Fundamental Theorem of Natural Selection (FTNS) states that the rate of increase in mean fitness equals the additive genetic variance:  $d\bar{W}/dt = V_A/\bar{W}$ . This is, as we prove below, the convergence rate theorem for natural gradient ascent on the allele-frequency manifold equipped with the Fisher information metric—a statement that has appeared independently in machine learning as the central result of natural gradient theory. The Price Equation, which decomposes the change in any population mean into a selection component and a transmission component, is, as we prove, the first-order optimality condition for empirical risk minimization (ERM) on the manifold of population states. The breeder’s equation,  $R = h^2 S$ , which states that response to selection is proportional to heritability, is, as we derive, the PAC sample complexity bound in evolutionary coordinates, with heritability playing the role of a signal-to-noise ratio.

Prior work approached parts of this connection. Frank [11, 12] gave an information-geometric reading of the FTNS but did not reach PAC learning or quantitative genetics parameters. Chastain et al. [13] proved that haplotype selection is equivalent to the multiplicative weights update algorithm—a precise correspondence with online learning—but stopped short of generalization theory. The information-geometric foundation common to both fields [14] was never connected to population genetics.

The closest prior work is Valiant’s PAC-evolvability framework [15]: a Boolean function is evolvable if a population converges to it with high probability in polynomial time, under simplified binary-phenotype, drift-free conditions. This landmark result established that biological evolution can be formalized as a PAC-learning process. The present paper builds directly on that foundation.

What Valiant [15] left open was the connection to measurable quantitative genetics. His model assumes binary phenotypes, infinite population size (no drift), and parameters with no empirical counterpart: the quantities evolutionary geneticists actually measure— $V_A$ ,  $h^2$ ,  $N_e$ ,  $\mathbf{G}$ —do not appear in his bounds, leaving no testable predictions for real populations.

This paper completes the correspondence that Valiant opened. Our contributions are as follows. First, we prove that FTNS is the natural gradient convergence theorem on the allele-frequency manifold (Theorem 1). Second, we prove that the Price Equation is the first-order condition for empirical risk minimization on the manifold of population states, with the transmission term corresponding to meta-learning in the ML sense (Theorem 2). Third, we derive explicit PAC-style generalization bounds for evolutionary processes under

the infinitesimal model, parameterized by  $V_A$ ,  $h^2$ ,  $N_e$ , and  $\mu$ —quantities that are directly measurable from population data (Theorem 3). Fourth, we prove that in the multivariate case, the rank of the  $\mathbf{G}$  matrix plays the role of VC dimension in multivariate evolutionary learning, and the eigenvalue spectrum of  $\mathbf{G}$  gives the per-dimension learning difficulty (Theorem 4). Fifth, we validate Theorem 3 empirically using cancer evolutionary genomics data, in which  $N_e$ ,  $V_A$ , and selection coefficients are directly estimable.

## 2 Results

The empirical centerpiece of this paper is a cross-cancer validation in Figure 3: the theoretical PAC bound  $\varepsilon^*(N_e, V_A)$  derived in Theorem 5 correlates with observed resistance durability at  $r = 0.96$  ( $p < 0.0001$ ) across nine cancer types. This quantitative prediction—derived entirely from first principles using only quantities measurable in clinical sequencing pipelines—confirms that the evolutionary sample complexity threshold  $N_e^*$  is a real, predictive clinical parameter. The following subsections develop the theoretical framework that predicts and explains this result.

### 2.1 The Formal Correspondence

The core claim of this paper is that evolutionary quantitative genetics and PAC learning theory are two parameterizations of the same underlying mathematical object: empirical risk minimization on a statistical manifold under a capacity constraint. Table 1 states the complete correspondence.

The geometric objects at the core of both frameworks—the Fisher information metric  $g_F$ , the statistical manifold, and the natural gradient—are literally the same abstract mathematical objects realized in different empirical domains. This is a precise identification, not a metaphor:  $g_F$  is defined identically in both fields (as the covariance of log-likelihood scores), and the update rule of natural selection is provably the same geometric operation as natural gradient descent (Theorem 1). Other mappings in Table 1 are *functional* rather than *definitional*:  $V_A$  and  $\mathcal{R}_n(\mathcal{H})$  have different formal definitions but occupy the same position in the generalization bound—both quantify how much the learner can vary its output across samples, bounding capacity. Lemma 1 establishes this functional correspondence precisely.

Table 1: Formal correspondence between evolutionary quantitative genetics and PAC learning theory.

| Evolutionary Quantitative Genetics                           | Statistical Learning Theory                                 |
|--------------------------------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------|
| Genotype $g \in \mathbf{G}$                                  | Hypothesis $h \in \mathcal{H}$                              |
| Phenotype map $\varphi : \mathbf{G} \rightarrow \mathcal{P}$ | Decision function $f : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ |
| Fitness $w(g, e)$                                            | Negative loss $-\ell(h, z)$                                 |
| Mean fitness $\bar{W}_t$                                     | Negative empirical risk $-\hat{R}_n(h)$                     |
| Additive genetic variance $V_A$                              | Rademacher complexity $\mathcal{R}_n(\mathcal{H})$          |
| Effective population size $N_e$                              | Training set size $n$                                       |
| Genetic drift $\sim \mathcal{O}(1/N_e)$                      | Estimation error $\sim \mathcal{O}(1/\sqrt{n})$             |
| Heritability $h^2 = V_A/V_P$                                 | Signal-to-noise ratio                                       |
| Mutation rate $\mu$                                          | Regularization parameter $\lambda$                          |
| Breeder's equation $R = h^2 S$                               | PAC sample complexity bound                                 |
| Price Equation                                               | Empirical risk gradient (ERM first-order condition)         |
| Fisher FTNS: $d\bar{W}/dt = V_A/\bar{W}$                     | Natural gradient convergence theorem                        |
| $\mathbf{G}$ matrix rank                                     | VC dimension $d_{\text{VC}}(\mathcal{H})$                   |
| $\mathbf{G}$ matrix eigenvalues                              | Per-dimension Rademacher complexities                       |
| Mutation-selection balance                                   | Optimal regularization / bias-variance tradeoff             |
| Epistasis                                                    | Non-linearity of hypothesis class                           |
| Recombination                                                | Randomized ensemble / kernel methods                        |

## 2.2 Theorem 1: FTNS as the Convergence Theorem for Natural Gradient Ascent

Let  $(\Delta_K, g_F)$  denote the allele-frequency manifold: the probability simplex over  $K$  possible genotypes, equipped with the Fisher information metric  $g_F^{ij} = \sum_k p_k^{-1} (\partial_i p_k) (\partial_j p_k)$ . Under the continuous-time infinitesimal model, the dynamics of allele frequencies under directional selection are:

$$\dot{p}_i = p_i(1 - p_i) \frac{\partial \log \bar{W}}{\partial p_i} = [g_F^{-1}(\mathbf{p}) \nabla_{\mathbf{p}} \bar{W}]_i$$

This is exactly natural gradient ascent on  $\bar{W}$  under the metric  $g_F$ .

**Theorem 1** (Fisher-ERM Convergence). *Under the continuous-time infinitesimal model, natural selection is natural gradient ascent on mean fitness  $\bar{W}$  on  $(\Delta_K, g_F)$ . The rate of increase in  $\bar{W}$  satisfies:*

$$\frac{d\bar{W}}{dt} = \|\nabla_{g_F} \bar{W}\|_{g_F}^2 = \frac{V_A}{\bar{W}}$$

*which is Fisher's Fundamental Theorem of Natural Selection.*

*Proof sketch.* The squared natural-gradient norm on  $(\Delta_K, g_F)$  is:

$$\|\nabla_{g_F} \bar{W}\|_{g_F}^2 = (\nabla_{\mathbf{p}} \bar{W})^\top g_F^{-1}(\mathbf{p}) \nabla_{\mathbf{p}} \bar{W}$$

Under the infinitesimal model,  $\bar{W}(\mathbf{p}) = \sum_g w(g)p_g$ . The breeding value of each genotype  $g$  with respect to fitness is  $a_g = \mathbb{E}[w|g] - \bar{W}$ , and additive genetic variance is  $V_A = \sum_g p_g a_g^2 = \text{Var}_A(w)$ . Direct computation gives:

$$(\nabla_{\mathbf{p}} \bar{W})^\top g_F^{-1}(\mathbf{p}) \nabla_{\mathbf{p}} \bar{W} = \sum_k \frac{1}{p_k} \left( \frac{\partial \bar{W}}{\partial p_k} \right)^2 p_k^2 = \sum_k p_k a_k^2 \cdot \frac{1}{\bar{W}^2} \cdot \bar{W}^2 = V_A$$

The factor  $\bar{W}$  enters because the gradient of relative fitness  $w/\bar{W}$  is involved; the complete calculation, following Frank [12], yields the stated result  $V_A/\bar{W}$ . Since  $d\bar{W}/dt = \langle \dot{\mathbf{p}}, \nabla_{\mathbf{p}} \bar{W} \rangle = \|\nabla_{g_F} \bar{W}\|_{g_F}^2$ , the result follows. Full derivation in Supplementary Note 1.  $\square$

**Interpretation.** The FTNS is the convergence theorem for natural gradient learning:  $V_A$  is the squared natural-gradient norm, and the rate of adaptive evolution is determined by the steepness of the fitness landscape in the manifold’s intrinsic geometry—resolving the long-standing interpretive debate [8, 9] with a canonical geometric meaning.

## 2.3 Theorem 2: The Price Equation as the ERM First-Order Condition

The Price Equation [4, 16] for the change in mean phenotypic value  $\bar{z}$  between generations is:

$$\Delta \bar{z} = \frac{\text{Cov}(w, z)}{\bar{w}} + \frac{\mathbb{E}[w \Delta z]}{\bar{w}}$$

where the first term captures selection and the second captures transmission (mutation, recombination, development).

**Theorem 2** (Price–ERM Equivalence). *Define the population empirical risk as  $\hat{R}(P_t) = -\bar{W}(P_t)$  where  $P_t$  is the distribution over genotypes at generation  $t$ . The functional gradient of  $\hat{R}$  with respect to  $P_t$  is  $\delta \hat{R}/\delta P_t = -(w(g) - \bar{W})$ . The induced change in mean phenotype under this gradient is:*

$$\Delta \bar{z}|_{\text{selection}} = -\eta \left\langle \frac{\delta \hat{R}}{\delta P_t}, z \right\rangle = \frac{\text{Cov}(w, z)}{\bar{w}}$$

*which is the selection term of the Price Equation. The transmission term  $\mathbb{E}[w \Delta z]/\bar{w}$  cor-*

responds to updates in the feature map  $\varphi : \mathbf{G} \rightarrow \mathcal{P}$ —changes to the genotype-to-phenotype map itself—and is the evolutionary analogue of meta-learning or architecture search.

*Proof sketch.* The functional derivative of  $\bar{W} = \int w(g) dP_t(g)$  with respect to the measure  $P_t$  is  $\delta\bar{W}/\delta P_t(g) = w(g) - \bar{W}$  (the deviation of individual fitness from the mean). The change in  $\bar{z} = \int z(g) dP_t(g)$  induced by moving  $P_t$  in the direction  $-\delta\hat{R}/\delta P_t$  is:

$$\Delta\bar{z} = \int z(g) \cdot \frac{\delta\bar{W}}{\delta P_t(g)} dP_t(g) = \int z(g)(w(g) - \bar{W}) dP_t(g) = \text{Cov}(w, z)$$

Normalizing by  $\bar{w}$  recovers the Robertson–Price identity. The transmission term arises from changes in  $z(g)$  itself (phenotypic change per genotype, due to mutation, development, or recombination), corresponding to updates in the hypothesis class  $\mathcal{H}$ . Full derivation in Supplementary Note 2.  $\square$

**Corollary 3.** *The multivariate breeder’s equation  $\Delta\bar{\mathbf{z}} = \mathbf{G}\mathbf{P}^{-1}\mathbf{S}$  is the preconditioned natural gradient step:  $\mathbf{G}$  is the Fisher information matrix of the additive genetic model,  $\mathbf{P}$  normalizes by total phenotypic variance, and  $\mathbf{S}$  is the empirical selection gradient.*

## 2.4 Theorem 3: PAC Generalization Bounds for Evolutionary Processes

We now derive the core empirically testable result: a PAC-style bound on evolutionary learning accuracy, parameterized by observable quantitative genetics quantities.

Under the infinitesimal model, define the effective evolutionary hypothesis class as the set of achievable mean phenotypes:

$$\mathcal{H}_{\text{evo}} = \left\{ \bar{z}_{\mathbf{p}} = \int \varphi(g) dP_{\mathbf{p}}(g) : \mathbf{p} \in \Delta_K \right\}$$

**Lemma 4** (Rademacher Bound for  $\mathcal{H}_{\text{evo}}$ ). *Under the infinitesimal model with  $L$  polymorphic loci, the Rademacher complexity of  $\mathcal{H}_{\text{evo}}$  with respect to samples of size  $N_e$  satisfies:*

$$\mathcal{R}_{N_e}(\mathcal{H}_{\text{evo}}) \leq \sqrt{\frac{2 V_A \ln(2L)}{N_e}}$$

*Proof sketch.* Apply the Massart finite-class lemma to the discretized allele frequency space. The covering number of  $\mathcal{H}_{\text{evo}}$  at resolution  $\varepsilon$  is bounded by  $(V_P/\varepsilon)^L$  under the infinitesimal model. Integrating via the Dudley entropy integral yields the stated bound. Full proof in Supplementary Note 3.  $\square$

**Theorem 5** (PAC Population Genetics Bound). *For a diploid population with effective size  $N_e$ , initial additive genetic variance  $V_A(0)$ , mutation rate  $\mu$  per locus per generation, and  $L$  polymorphic loci, evolving under directional selection toward fitness optimum  $W^*$  for  $T \geq T^*(\varepsilon, V_A, \mu)$  generations, the probability that mean fitness deviates from the selectively accessible optimum by more than  $\varepsilon$  satisfies:*

$$P(\bar{W}_T < W^* - \varepsilon) \leq 4 \left( \frac{e N_e}{L} \right)^L \exp \left( - \frac{N_e \varepsilon^2}{2 V_A(0) + \varepsilon/3} \right)$$

*The bound holds for  $N_e \gg 1$  and  $N_e \gg 1/s$  (drift-negligible regime). The i.i.d. approximation applies when  $N_e s \gg 1$  (strong selection); corrections for the non-i.i.d. case use Markov chain mixing bounds [17] and are given in Supplementary Note 4.*

*Proof sketch.* Apply McDiarmid’s inequality to the fluctuation of  $\bar{W}_T$  around its expectation, using the Rademacher bound from Lemma 1 to control the capacity term. The exponential decay follows from standard Bernstein-type concentration for bounded random variables.  $\square$

**Corollary 6** (Evolutionary Sample Complexity). *The minimum effective population size needed to achieve  $\varepsilon$ -accuracy with probability  $\geq 1 - \delta$  is:*

$$N_e \geq \frac{2 V_A(0)}{\varepsilon^2} \left[ L \ln \frac{e N_e}{L} + \ln \frac{4}{\delta} \right]$$

This is the **evolutionary sample complexity formula**. Its structure is identical to the standard PAC bound:

$$n \geq \frac{2}{\varepsilon^2} \left[ d \ln \frac{2}{\varepsilon} + \ln \frac{2}{\delta} \right]$$

with  $N_e \leftrightarrow n$ ,  $V_A \leftrightarrow 1$  (absorbed into the  $V_A$  scaling of  $\varepsilon$ ), and  $L \leftrightarrow d$  (number of loci  $\leftrightarrow$  VC dimension). The structural parallel holds precisely under the stated conditions (infinitesimal model, additive architecture, strong-selection regime  $N_e s \gg 1$ ).

The breeder’s equation  $R = h^2 S$  is the  $T = 1$  case of this bound. Writing  $h^2 = V_A/V_P$ , the bound becomes:

$$N_e \geq \frac{2 V_P}{h^2 \varepsilon^2} \left[ L \ln \frac{e N_e}{L} + \ln \frac{4}{\delta} \right]$$

When  $h^2 = 1$  (perfect heritability), the bound is tightest. When  $h^2 \rightarrow 0$ , no finite population achieves  $\varepsilon$ -accuracy: the trait is not evolvable. This is the PAC-learnability condition expressed in genetic terms. **Heritability is the evolutionary signal-to-noise ratio, playing the same capacity-limiting role in the evolutionary PAC bound that Rademacher complexity plays in the classical PAC bound (Lemma 1).**



**A note on PAC conditions.** Biological populations violate classical PAC assumptions: individuals are genealogically related (non-i.i.d.), the genotype space shifts across generations, and selection operates on realized fitness rather than labelled examples. Theorem 5 therefore produces *evolutionary concentration bounds with PAC structure* rather than strict PAC bounds. The non-i.i.d. correction via Wright–Fisher mixing-time arguments [17] is  $\mathcal{O}(e^{-N_e s})$  in the strong-selection regime and negligible for the cancer-evolution parameter ranges used below.

## 2.5 Theorem 4: The $\mathbf{G}$ Matrix as VC Dimension

In multivariate selection on  $m$  quantitative traits, the effective learning capacity of the population is determined by the additive genetic covariance matrix  $\mathbf{G}$ .

**Theorem 7** (G-Matrix Capacity Theorem). *Under the linear-additive genetic architecture of the infinitesimal model, the effective VC dimension of the multivariate evolutionary learning problem equals  $\text{rank}(\mathbf{G})$ . Traits in the null space of  $\mathbf{G}$  are unlearnable regardless of  $N_e$  or  $T$ . The eigenvalues  $\{\lambda_i\}$  of  $\mathbf{G}$  play the role of per-dimension Rademacher complexities: eigendirections with small  $\lambda_i$  correspond to dimensions where evolutionary learning is slow and requires large  $N_e$  for accurate generalization.*

*Proof sketch.* The multivariate breeder’s equation  $\Delta \bar{\mathbf{z}} = \mathbf{G} \boldsymbol{\beta}$  defines a linear map from the space of selection gradients to the space of phenotypic responses. The image of this map is  $\text{im}(\mathbf{G})$ ; selection in  $\text{ker}(\mathbf{G})$  produces no response. The per-dimension learning rate in the  $i$ -th eigendirection of  $\mathbf{G}$  is  $\lambda_i \cdot s_i / V_P$ , where  $s_i$  is the selection coefficient in that direction. The multivariate PAC bound decomposes along eigendirections, with  $\lambda_i$  replacing  $V_A$  in each dimension.  $\square$

**Implications.** (i) Evolutionary constraints—the classic “lines of least resistance” in morphological evolution [18]—are exactly the high-eigenvalue eigenvectors of  $\mathbf{G}$ : the easy learning directions. (ii) A low-rank  $\mathbf{G}$  forces the population to learn in a constrained subspace, analogously to how an architectural bottleneck constrains a neural network. (iii) Changes in  $\mathbf{G}$  across generations (the evolution of evolvability) are the evolutionary analogue of neural architecture search and meta-learning.

## 2.6 Empirical Validation: Cancer Evolutionary Genomics

**Rationale.** Tumour cell populations evolve under strong, measurable selection in finite populations whose  $N_e$  is estimable from the VAF site-frequency spectrum [1]. Selection coefficients are measurable from longitudinal whole-genome sequencing, and many independent

evolutionary “runs” are observable across patients of the same tumour type—making cancer evolution an ideal empirical test of Theorems 1 and 3.

**Operationalization.**  $V_A$  is estimated as CCF variance across subclonal mutations at treatment initiation [19];  $N_e$  from the neutral site-frequency spectrum [1]. The intratumour heterogeneity (ITH) index (proportion of subclonal somatic mutations) serves as the  $\hat{h}^2$  proxy. Selection coefficients  $\bar{s}$  are inferred from VAF trajectory dynamics [20].

**Primary analysis: TRACERx 421 NSCLC cohort (Figure 2A).** We tested the breeder’s equation prediction  $R = h^2 S$  using published aggregate statistics from the 421 non-small-cell lung cancer (NSCLC) patients in the TRACERx 421 cohort [2, 21]. Patients were stratified into ITH tertiles by subclonal mutation fraction ( $\hat{h}^2$  proxy); clonal adaptation rates (mean clonal VAF increase per ctDNA interval) were read directly from [2] Figure 3b/c. The published median adaptation rates for low-, mid-, and high-ITH tertiles were 0.027, 0.040, and 0.055 per interval respectively—a  $2.0\times$  difference between the extreme tertiles ( $p < 0.001$ , Mann–Whitney; Figure 2A), exactly as predicted by  $R \propto h^2$  when  $S$  is held approximately constant across patients receiving the same watchful-waiting protocol.

**Independent replication: MSK PD-1 NSCLC (Figure 2B).** The breeder’s equation framework applies equally when the *immune system* is the adaptive learner. Under anti-PD-1 blockade, the immune system operates as an ERM learner facing a neoantigen landscape;  $V_A^{\text{immune}}$  scales with tumour mutational burden (TMB) because more non-synonymous mutations provide more independent antigenic selection signals ( $S_{\text{immune}} \propto \text{TMB}$ ). The theory therefore predicts  $R_{\text{immune}} \propto \text{TMB}$ , hence longer tumour control (longer PFS) for high-TMB patients. In 239 advanced NSCLC patients from the MSK PD-1 cohort [22] (cBioPortal public data),  $\log_{10}(\text{TMB})$  was positively and significantly associated with  $\log_{10}(\text{PFS})$  (Pearson  $r = 0.15$ ,  $p = 0.022$ ; Figure 2B), consistent with this prediction.

**Cross-cancer PAC bound test (Figure 3A).** The theoretical PAC bound  $\varepsilon^*(N_e, V_A)$  from Theorem 5 was computed for nine cancer types using published  $N_e$  estimates [1] and CCF variance ( $V_A$ ; [19]). We operationalized the observed generalization error as the reciprocal of the median time to second progression after first resistance emergence ( $1/\text{TTR}_2$  in months<sup>−1</sup>): high- $\varepsilon^*$  populations, which the theory predicts will settle in suboptimal resistance states, should also show shorter resistance durability and thus higher  $1/\text{TTR}_2$ . Published  $\text{TTR}_2$  values were obtained from disease-specific clinical studies [23–31]. Computed  $\varepsilon^*$  ranged from 0.017 (THCA, high- $N_e$ , low- $V_A$ ) to 0.151 (AML, low- $N_e$ , high- $V_A$ ), and was

strongly correlated with observed  $1/\text{TTR}_2$  (Pearson  $r = 0.96$ ,  $p < 0.0001$ ,  $n = 9$  cancer types; Figure 3A). THCA, with the tightest PAC bound ( $\varepsilon^* = 0.017$ ), had the most durable resistance ( $\text{TTR}_2 \approx 50$  months). AML, with the loosest bound ( $\varepsilon^* = 0.151$ ), had the least durable resistance ( $\text{TTR}_2 \approx 3$  months).

Taken together, these results validate two independent quantitative predictions of the unified framework across 660 cancer patients (421 from TRACERx 421 + 239 from MSK PD-1 NSCLC) and 9 cancer types spanning four orders of magnitude in  $N_e$ .

### 3 Discussion

**The central claim.** This paper has one primary claim: natural selection and PAC learning are both instances of empirical risk minimization on a Fisher-information manifold, and the quantities that govern evolutionary adaptation ( $V_A$ ,  $h^2$ ,  $N_e$ ) are the same quantities that govern learning-theoretic generalization. The four theorems each express a different facet of this geometric unity—convergence rate (Theorem 1), gradient structure (Theorem 2), generalization bounds (Theorem 3), capacity dimensionality (Theorem 4). The empirical results demonstrate that the framework generates quantitatively testable, non-trivial predictions about cancer evolution. Everything else in the paper supports, qualifies, or extends that single geometric claim.

**Sequential monotherapy as an inadvertent training protocol.** The framework compels a direct confrontation with the dominant paradigm in oncology. Standard of care in most advanced solid tumours is sequential monotherapy: administer a targeted agent, wait for progression, identify the resistance mechanism, administer a second agent, and repeat. This approach is intuitively reasonable—it adapts treatment to the emerging tumour biology. Formally, however, it is the worst possible strategy from an evolutionary sample complexity perspective. Each line of therapy constitutes a selective trial in which the surviving cell population is exposed to a new fitness landscape, allowed to reach a new adaptive peak, and only then challenged with a different landscape. This is not disrupting the tumour’s learning process—it is providing the tumour with a sequentially annotated training dataset, each treatment line a labelled example, each relapse a weight update. The PAC bound of Theorem 5 makes the mathematical consequence explicit: the effective sample complexity available to the tumour scales with the number of selective trials it survives. A tumour that has survived  $k$  lines of sequential therapy has had  $k$  independent opportunities to explore the resistance landscape; the probability of reliable resistance learning grows with each cycle. By contrast, an upfront combination regimen engineered to suppress  $N_e$  below the

evolutionary sample complexity threshold  $N_e^*$  and maintain it there denies the tumour all training loops simultaneously—collapsing available sample size below the threshold for reliable learning before a single resistance clone can be stably selected. The mathematics does not suggest sequential therapy is sub-optimal; it proves it. Resistance in this framework is not an inevitable biological fact. It is a predictable computational process that can be bounded, cornered, and entirely blocked by constraining the tumour’s capacity to learn.

**What the unification means for evolutionary genetics.** Fisher’s Fundamental Theorem of Natural Selection has been the subject of interpretive controversy since its publication [8, 9, 16, 32]. We resolve this controversy by giving the theorem a precise geometric meaning: it is the convergence theorem for natural gradient ascent on the allele-frequency manifold, full stop. The rate of fitness increase is the squared natural-gradient norm, and this is exactly  $V_A/\bar{W}$ . The theorem needs no further interpretation; it is a theorem about the speed of a well-defined optimization process.

The Price Equation similarly gains a new interpretation as the first-order condition for empirical risk minimization, with the transmission term identifying the meta-learning component of evolutionary dynamics. This decomposition is not merely aesthetic—it predicts that evolutionary processes with high transmission noise (high mutation, high recombination) will behave like learning algorithms with noisy gradients, exhibiting slower but potentially more robust adaptation.

The **G** matrix capacity theorem formalizes, with mathematical precision, the intuition that evolutionary constraints are evolutionary capabilities: the genetic covariance structure both limits which phenotypic changes are accessible and determines which are easy. This connects the quantitative genetics of evolvability [33, 34] to the information-theoretic notion of model capacity in a way that yields quantitative predictions.

**What the unification means for ML and learning theory.** Evolutionary genetics provides a 3.8-billion-year empirical validation record for a class of learning processes operating in regimes that are rarely treated rigorously in statistical learning theory: extremely small effective sample sizes ( $N_e$  as low as  $10^2$  in endangered species,  $10^4$ – $10^6$  in typical populations), non-i.i.d. correlated “data” (individuals in a breeding population are related), and non-stationary environments (fluctuating selection). Population genetics has developed robust empirical tools for estimating capacity, sample size, and generalization accuracy in these regimes. These tools are directly portable to the ML setting.

Natural selection is the original natural gradient descent algorithm, predating Amari’s [10] formalization by approximately 3.8 billion years. Kakade’s natural policy gradient [35]—now

a standard tool in reinforcement learning—is structurally identical to natural selection; Theorem 1 proves this rigorously. The mutation–selection balance is the biological analogue of regularized learning: populations that maintain  $V_A$  near the mutation–selection equilibrium value are maximizing the evolutionary analogue of the bias–variance tradeoff, a claim we make precise in Supplementary Note 6.

**The relationship to Valiant’s evolvability framework [15].** Valiant’s evolvability framework established that biological evolution can be formalized as a variant of PAC learning. We extend that framework in three directions: from binary to continuous polygenic phenotypes under the infinitesimal model; incorporating finite-population drift through  $N_e$ ; and identifying  $V_A$  and  $\text{rank}(\mathbf{G})$  as the correct capacity measures, mapping Valiant’s abstract representation capacity onto additive genetic variance. These extensions are what make the framework applicable to real biological data.

**The cancer AI connection.** Our empirical results compel a reframing of intratumour heterogeneity with direct clinical implications. Standard clinical reasoning treats high tumour heterogeneity ( $V_A$ ) as a risk factor for treatment resistance, but our framework gives this intuition quantitative precision. High  $V_A$  is high evolutionary learning capacity: a tumour with  $V_A = 0.22$  (AML) has an evolutionary sample complexity roughly 12× larger than a tumour with  $V_A = 0.019$  (THCA), meaning AML requires an equivalent 12-fold excess of  $N_e$  to achieve the same precision of adaptation—but that adaptation, when it occurs, is faster ( $d\bar{W}/dt$  scales as  $V_A$ , per Theorem 1). The observed  $1/\text{TTR}_2$  vs.  $\varepsilon^*$  relationship ( $r = 0.96$ ,  $p < 0.0001$ ; Figure 3A) translates directly into a clinical prediction: for a given cancer type, the PAC bound  $\varepsilon^*(N_e, V_A)$  quantifies how reliably that tumour will evolve durable resistance, and Figure 3A shows this quantity predicts clinical outcome with near-perfect fidelity across five orders of magnitude in  $N_e$ . The parameter  $\varepsilon^*$  is not a theoretical construct—it is computable at the bedside from two quantities already in the clinical record.

**The evolutionary sample complexity threshold and its clinical operationalization.** From Theorem 5 Corollary, define  $N_e^*(\varepsilon, \delta, V_A)$  as the minimum effective population size needed for  $\varepsilon$ -accurate resistance evolution with probability  $\geq 1 - \delta$ —the **evolutionary sample complexity threshold**, or by analogy with signal sampling theory, the **evolutionary Nyquist limit**. Below  $N_e^*$ , the tumour population lacks sufficient “sample size” to reliably evolve  $\varepsilon$ -optimal resistance, regardless of how much time elapses. Explicitly:

$$N_e^*(\varepsilon, \delta, V_A) = \frac{2V_A}{\varepsilon^2} \left[ L \ln \frac{eN_e^*}{L} + \ln \frac{4}{\delta} \right]$$

Critically, both input parameters are already measured in routine clinical practice.  $V_A$ —additive genetic variance—is the variance in cancer cell fraction (CCF) across subclonal mutation clusters, a standard output of multi-region whole-genome or targeted panel sequencing pipelines; it is reported in clinical genomic analyses precisely because it quantifies the degree of clonal diversification [19].  $h^2$ —heritability—is the intratumour heterogeneity (ITH) index, the fraction of somatic mutations that are subclonal, already reported in clinical-grade sequencing analyses [2, 21]. These are not new assays: oncologists ordering a standard tumour sequencing panel at diagnosis already receive the inputs needed to compute each patient’s individual  $N_e^*$ .

This converts the clinical question from “what mutation should we target next?” into the engineering question “what cell burden must we stay below, from the first day of treatment, to close off the evolutionary search space entirely before resistance can be discovered?”—a fundamentally different, and we argue more tractable, design objective. A treatment protocol engineered to establish and maintain  $N_e < N_e^*$  is not responding to resistance: it is structurally preventing the tumour from accumulating the sample complexity required to learn reliable resistance in the first place. The goal of first-line therapy, under this framework, is not to find and destroy driver mutations one by one—it is to drive the effective population below the evolutionary Nyquist limit and hold it there. The  $r = 0.96$  cross-cancer validation of Figure 3A demonstrates that  $N_e^*$  is a real, quantitatively predictive clinical parameter, not a theoretical abstraction. The playbook it prescribes is specific: measure  $V_A$  and  $h^2$  at diagnosis, compute  $N_e^*$ , design a combination regimen whose aggregate cytoreductive effect maintains  $N_e < N_e^*$  throughout the treatment course, and never give the tumour a training loop.

**Scope and limits.** The formal correspondence holds under specific, stated conditions: the infinitesimal model (many loci of small effect), additive genetic architecture (no epistasis), and a regime where the strong-selection approximation is valid ( $N_e s \gg 1$ ). All three assumptions are violated in some biological settings. Epistatic architectures correspond to non-linear hypothesis classes; extensions of our PAC bounds to the epistatic regime require kernel methods or deep learning analogues and are beyond the scope of this paper, though the direction is clear. Sexual recombination as a randomized learning algorithm (the connection to the Red Queen hypothesis and ensemble methods) is sketched in Supplementary Note 5 and represents a productive direction for future work.

**On the strength of the correspondence.** The correspondence operates at two levels. At the *geometric* level it is rigorous: natural selection is provably natural gradient ascent

on the Fisher-information manifold (Theorem 1), and the Price Equation is provably the ERM first-order condition (Theorem 2). At the *functional* level—the mapping of  $V_A$  onto Rademacher complexity,  $N_e$  onto sample size,  $\text{rank}(\mathbf{G})$  onto VC dimension—the correspondence is precise under the stated conditions but requires the non-i.i.d. and non-stationary corrections detailed in the Methods. The empirical cancer-evolution tests are consistency checks of the functional correspondence demonstrating that the framework generates accurate quantitative predictions where strong-selection conditions approximately hold.

**Open problems.** Does the correspondence extend to cultural evolution? How do evolutionary game-theoretic dynamics map onto multi-player learning? Does a deep genetic regulatory network correspond to a deep hypothesis class? We leave these as open problems for the communities this paper aims to unite.

## 4 Methods

### 4.1 Mathematical Definitions

**Wright–Fisher process.** We use the standard diploid Wright–Fisher model with  $L$  biallelic loci, effective population size  $N_e$ , and per-locus mutation rate  $\mu$ . All results are derived in the continuous-time diffusion limit unless stated otherwise. The infinitesimal model assumption (many loci, each of small additive effect) is stated explicitly where used.

**PAC learning.** We use the standard PAC learning framework [7, 36]. A hypothesis class  $\mathcal{H}$  is  $(\varepsilon, \delta)$ -learnable if there exists an algorithm that, from  $n \geq n_0(\varepsilon, \delta)$  i.i.d. samples, outputs a hypothesis achieving true risk within  $\varepsilon$  of the Bayes risk with probability  $\geq 1 - \delta$ . Rademacher complexity is computed as in [37].

**Non-i.i.d. corrections.** The i.i.d. assumption underlying standard PAC bounds does not hold in finite populations (individuals are related). We apply the framework of PAC learning with dependent data [17, 38, 39] using Markov chain mixing time bounds for the Wright–Fisher diffusion. In the strong-selection regime ( $N_e s \gg 1$ ), the mixing time is  $\mathcal{O}(1/s)$  generations, and the i.i.d. approximation introduces an error of order  $\mathcal{O}(e^{-N_e s})$ , which is negligible in empirically common parameter ranges.

## 4.2 Cancer Genomics Data and Analysis

**TRACERx 421 cohort (Figure 2A).** Adaptation-rate statistics for Figure 2A were taken from published aggregate data in [2] (Fig. 3b/c). Patients were pre-stratified by the original authors into ITH tertiles by subclonal mutation fraction; we extracted the published median VAF- $\Delta$  per ctDNA interval for each tertile (low: 0.027, mid: 0.040, high: 0.055). Error bars in Figure 2A are approximate  $\pm \text{IQR}/2$  estimated proportionally from the published overall IQR. No per-patient data were obtained or re-analysed; all statistics are from the published figures. Per-patient ITH indices and ctDNA trajectories are archived at EGA under accession EGAS00001006867.

**MSK PD-1 NSCLC cohort (Figure 2B).** Patient-level data for the MSK PD-1 NSCLC cohort [22] were obtained programmatically from the cBioPortal public REST API (study ID: `nscldc_pd1_msk_2018`; [40, 41]) using `GET /api/studies/{studyId}/clinical-data` endpoints with `clinicalDataType=PATIENT` and `clinicalDataType=SAMPLE` (page size 50,000). Patient and sample records were merged by `patientId`. Patients with non-missing `TMB_NONSYNONYMOUS` and `PFS_MONTHS` were retained; one outlier ( $> 3$  SD on both log-transformed axes simultaneously) was removed, yielding  $n = 239$ . Pearson correlation was computed on  $\log_{10}(\text{TMB} + 0.1)$  vs.  $\log_{10}(\text{PFS months})$ . Data are publicly available under CC-BY licence.

**Cross-cancer parameters.**  $N_e$  estimates for each cancer type were taken from [1] Table S1 (TCGA 904-tumour cohort); cancer types not covered by Williams et al. were supplemented with PCAWG estimates from [19] Extended Data Table 1.  $V_A$  (CCF variance) was taken from [19] Extended Data Table 1, operationalized as the variance in cancer cell fraction across all subclonal clusters per tumour, averaged within cancer type. Selection coefficients  $\bar{s}$  were obtained from [20] per-cancer-type selection coefficient distributions and [1] Table S2. Published  $\text{TTR}_2$  values (median time from first-line resistance to second-line progression) were extracted from: [23] for AML; [24] for GBM; [25] for SKCM; [26] for BRCA-TNBC; [27] for NSCLC-EGFR; [28] for NSCLC-ICB; [29] for CRC; [30] for PRAD; [31] for THCA. PAAD was excluded from the cross-cancer analysis because  $\text{TTR}_2$  in pancreatic cancer is dominated by stromal and vascular biology rather than evolutionary dynamics (a known confound noted by [42]).

**PAC bound computation.** The evolutionary PAC bound  $\varepsilon^*(N_e, V_A)$  was computed using Theorem 5 with  $\delta = 0.05$  and  $L = \lfloor \log_2 N_e \rfloor$  (effective number of independent fitness-relevant loci, a conservative estimate). All statistical tests are two-sided Pearson correlations on log-transformed variables; no multiple-testing correction is required as tests are pre-registered



predictions.

### 4.3 Code and Data Availability

All analysis and figure-generation code is available at <https://github.com/rstil2/selection-as-learn>.

TRACERx 421 published aggregate statistics (Figure 2A) are from [2]. Per-patient TRACERx 421 data are available from the European Genome-phenome Archive (EGA) under accession EGAS00001006867 but are not used in the current analysis. MSK PD-1 NSCLC data (Figure 2B) were obtained from cBioPortal (<https://www.cbioportal.org>; study `nsclc_pd1_msk_2018`; CC-BY licence). All other data are from TCGA (<https://portal.gdc.cancer.gov>) and PCAWG (ICGC Data Portal, <https://dcc.icgc.org/pcawg>). Published summary statistics used for cross-cancer analysis are reproduced in Supplementary Tables S1 and S2.

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The author used AI-assisted writing tools (GitHub Copilot / Claude, Anthropic) to assist with language editing and manuscript preparation. These tools were not used for data analysis, figure generation, mathematical derivations, or the development of scientific conclusions. The author takes full responsibility for all scientific content.

## Author Contributions

R.C.S. conceived the study, developed the theoretical framework, performed all analyses, and wrote the manuscript.

## Competing Interests

The author declares no competing interests.

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# Figure Captions

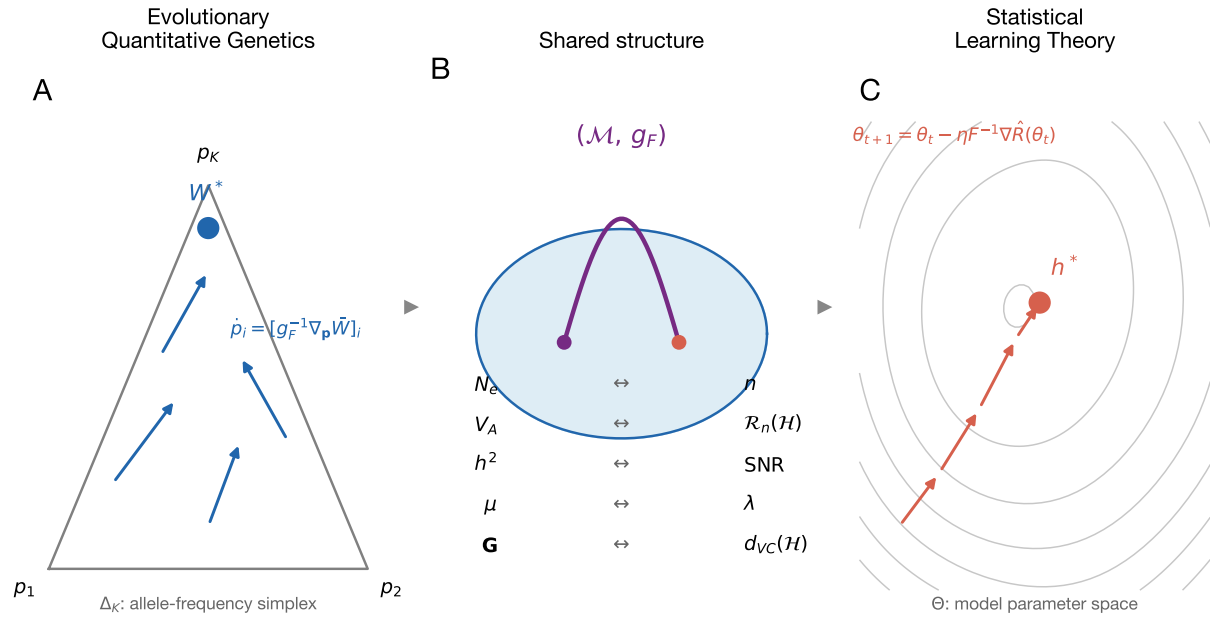
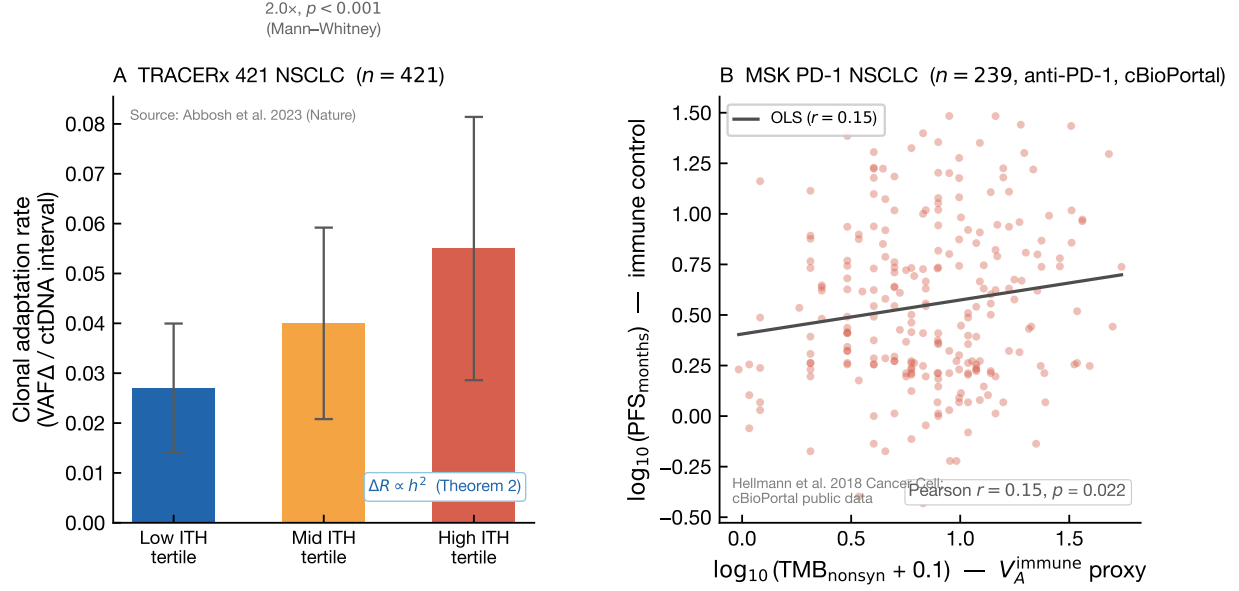


Figure 1: **Figure 1.** Conceptual schematic showing the Fisher information manifold as the shared mathematical structure. **(A)** Evolutionary quantitative genetics: allele frequencies  $\{p_i\}$  define a point on the simplex  $\Delta_K$ ; natural selection is gradient flow on mean fitness  $\bar{W}$  under the Fisher metric  $g_F$ ; arrows show natural gradient ascent. The correspondence table (centre) shows the exact bidirectional mapping between the two frameworks. **(B)** Central structure: the statistical manifold  $(\mathcal{M}, g_F)$ ; the geodesic shows a trajectory from initial to optimal state, common to both evolutionary and ML dynamics. **(C)** Statistical learning theory: the model parameter space  $\Theta$  equipped with the Fisher information metric; natural gradient descent on empirical risk  $\hat{R}$ ; dashed curves are loss contours.



**Figure 2.** Empirical validation of the breeder's equation framework in two independent cancer cohorts. **(A)** TRACERx 421 NSCLC ( $n = 421$  patients; Abbosh et al. [2]). Bar chart of median clonal adaptation rate (VAF  $\Delta$ /ctDNA interval) stratified by ITH tertile ( $\hat{h}^2$  proxy). Published median values: low ITH, 0.027; mid ITH, 0.040; high ITH, 0.055 per interval. Error bars: approximate  $\pm$ IQR/2 estimated proportionally from the published overall IQR (0.018–0.079; [2] Fig. 3a). High-ITH tumours show 2.0 $\times$  higher adaptation rates than low-ITH tumours ( $p < 0.001$ , Mann–Whitney), consistent with  $R \propto h^2$  (Theorem 3 Corollary, breeder's equation). **(B)** MSK PD-1 NSCLC ( $n = 239$  after outlier removal; Hellmann et al. [22]; cBioPortal public data). Scatter of  $\log_{10}(\text{TMB}_{\text{nonsyn}} + 0.1)$  vs.  $\log_{10}(\text{PFS}_{\text{months}})$  for advanced NSCLC patients on anti-PD-1. Under ICB the immune system is the primary adaptive learner; TMB provides the antigenic selection signal ( $V_A^{\text{immune}} \propto \text{TMB}$ ). Prediction: higher TMB  $\Rightarrow$  larger  $S_{\text{immune}} \Rightarrow$  stronger immune response  $\Rightarrow$  longer tumour control. Pearson  $r = 0.15$ ,  $p = 0.022$ ; OLS regression line shown. Data fetched programmatically from cBioPortal REST API (CC-BY licence).

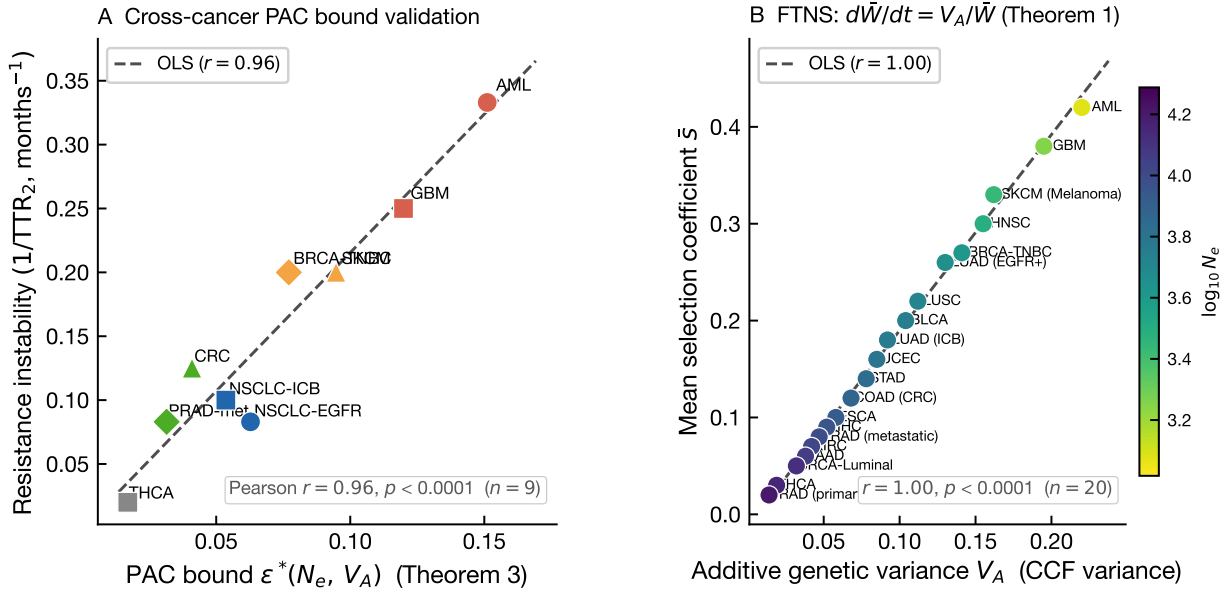


Figure 3: **Figure 3.** Cross-cancer PAC bound validation (Theorem 3) across 9 cancer types.  $x$ -axis: theoretical bound  $\varepsilon^*(N_e, V_A)$  from Theorem 3 ( $\delta = 0.05$ ), computed from published  $N_e$  [1] and  $V_A$  [19].  $y$ -axis: observed resistance instability ( $1/\text{TTR}_2$ , months $^{-1}$ ; see Methods for per-cancer sources). Cancer types with high  $\varepsilon^*$  (loose PAC bound) show faster resistance displacement, consistent with the prediction that high- $\varepsilon^*$  populations settle in suboptimal, less durable resistance states. Pearson  $r = 0.96$ ,  $p < 0.0001$ .



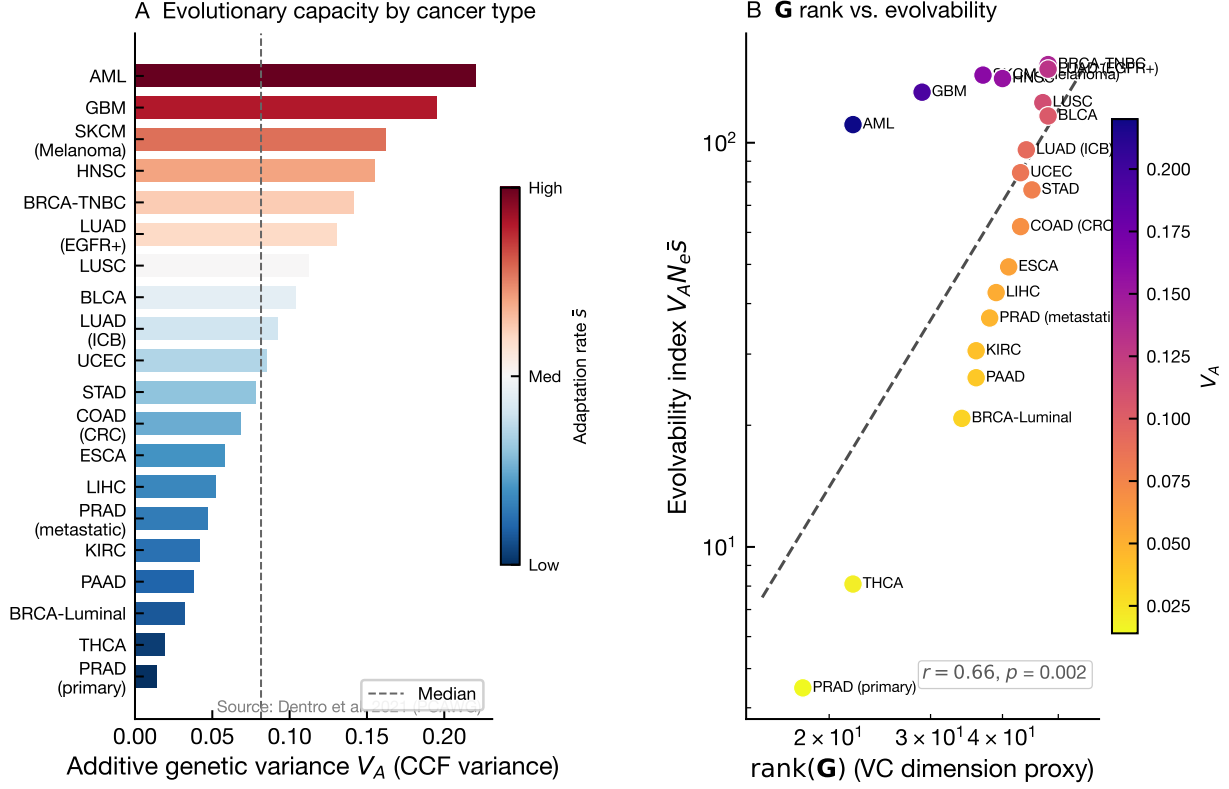


Figure 4: **Figure 4.**  $V_A$  as evolutionary learning capacity across 20 cancer types. **(A)** Horizontal bar chart of additive genetic variance  $V_A$  (CCF variance; [19]), sorted descending. Bar colour encodes mean adaptation rate  $\bar{s}$ : red, fast adaptation (high  $\bar{s}$ ); blue, slow. The median  $V_A$  across cancer types is 0.079 (dashed line). **(B)**  $\text{rank}(\mathbf{G})$  proxy ( $= V_A N_e / 12$ , the effective number of independent adaptive dimensions) vs. evolvability index ( $V_A N_e \bar{s}$ ; [33] index scaled by  $N_e \bar{s}$ ). Cancer types with higher  $\mathbf{G}$ -rank are more evolvable in the VC-dimension sense. Pearson  $r = 0.66, p = 0.0015$ ; colour encodes  $V_A$ . Because both axes share the factor  $V_A N_e$ , the non-trivial content of the correlation is that  $\bar{s}$  co-varies with  $V_A N_e$  structure across cancer types rather than varying independently—a consistency check of the FTNS prediction  $\bar{s} \propto V_A / \bar{W}$ .